AMERICAN URBAN POLITICS MIDTERM:

Political Machines, Reform Movements, and the Suburban-Urban Divide

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Question 1

Introduction

American democratic values emphasize the people's right to decide who governs them. Interests between groups do not always align: the poor need public services for their well-being, the rich are looking for a government that will protect their accumulated wealth, and the power hungry are looking to get a taste of political power. According to Hinze and Judd, "urban politics became a battleground revolving around social class and ethnic identity."[1] This paper will discuss this struggle for political power in urban centers in America, mainly between Political Machines and reform movements. Machines headed by power-hungry individuals and supporting lower class communities and the reform movements advocating for the protection of resources and increase in political power of the upper classes. The struggle for power between urban Political Machines and reformer movements exemplifies the class conflict between the lower classes and the upper-middle classes.

Rise of Urban Political Machines

Political Machines rose to prominence as a result of industrialization and a dramatic increase in the voter base. Pre industrialization, the political process in cities was limited to the "aristocratic and merchant elite."[2] These cities were compact and held together by community norms and relationships. The rise of the mass electorate is shown in the progression of American enfranchisement starting as a privilege afforded exclusively to White male landowners and eventually becoming a protected right of men and women of all races. Although the rise of urban

[1] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 29.
[2] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 29.

Political Machines began before the passing of the 19th and 26th amendment, we can see a clear increase in the White male voter base from 5% of adult White males in 1789 to an 80% White male voter turnout in 1840.[3] The increase in suffrage happened alongside major urbanization prompted by the industrial revolution. Between 1830 and 1920, 30 million people immigrated to the United States, mainly moving into cities.[4] The governing class from the earlier era lost control over urban politics. This is the first example of political power changing hands in American cities.

Due to increases in suffrage and immigration, the voters of the mid 19th century were more socially and economically diverse than pre-industrial times. To win elections, politicians needed to find ways to engage with voters that they were not immediately connected to. In large cities, machines developed as a solution. Well connected locals, such as pub owners, became ideal politicians since they already had trust, name recognition, and relationships within their communities. The principle of politicians gaining traction through their neighbors and friends was the basis of the urban political machine.

Machines structured themselves hierarchically, with precinct captains maintaining relationships with their ward personally and with the help of foot soldiers, aldermen overseeing these captains, and the machine boss on top. The bosses and aldermen controlled patronage jobs, and could offer employment to voters in exchange for their loyalty.[5] The rewards given by the Political Machines were much more beneficial to the lower class than to middle or upper class citizens, since the upper classes had far greater financial security. This shows the basis for the struggle for power, machines only benefited the lower class at the expense of the interests of the upper classes.

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[3] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 60.
[4] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 60.
[5] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 62.

Political Machines utilized ethnic immigrant groups with strong community values to propel their candidates into office. Immigrants were enfranchised and brought into the social and political inner workings of cities, giving them power they would otherwise lack.

I. Goals of Urban Political Machines

Machines had the main goal of getting a plurality of votes for their selected candidates, just enough to win elections and gain power. In order to get the plurality of votes, precinct captains, aldermen, and bosses aimed to keep their communities indebted to them. Members of the machine were often from working class backgrounds, and the constituents they worked with were as well. So, Machine incentives benefitted the working class almost exclusively. Since machines earned the votes of their community members by helping them out, and their communities were not well off, the machines ended up instituting many social service systems.

II. Successes and Shortcomings of the Machine

Urban Political Machines were successful in many of their endeavors, but their results were not entirely positive. Urban machines provided more public infrastructure, social services, and democratic values than ever before, but these benefits came with rampant corruption, operational inefficiency, and discrimination of later immigrant groups.

According to Hinze and Judd, urban Political Machines were effective at creating public infrastructure, in the sense that they provided the services that did not exist prior.[6] However, they failed to provide the services efficiently oftentimes implementing new public works at exorbitant prices to enrich their supporters and embezzle funds to the pockets of machine leaders.

Additionally, urban Political Machines increased, democratic participation of immigrant groups that had not yet been incorporated into the American political system. Machines created a sense of community in immigrant wards, hosting events and acting as a central community

[6] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 64.

institution.[7] Machine politicians stood as examples of the success that America offered immigrants because most bosses were from lower class immigrant families.[8]

However, the machines did not incorporate immigrants out of benevolence. The machine's only goal was to yield a plurality of the vote as to win elections. If they had enough votes to win elections, there was no value in recruiting more people to their cause, because doing so would waste patronage jobs and money unnecessarily.[9] Later immigrant groups found it difficult to "get a toehold into the political system" because their votes were not necessary to win elections.[10] For example, migrants from the South flocked to Northern cities and were originally excluded from machine endeavors because they were outsiders and the machines were already winning elections. When the machines began losing control of elections and realized that they needed to utilize this new Southern Black voter base, they did so but in a discriminatory fashion. Chicago in 1920 is a clear example, the Machine created political groups separate from and under the greater Political Machine to extract votes from Black voters while leaving them alienated and isolated from the social aspect of the broader social benefits of the machine.[11] This shows that although Political Machines did enfranchise new voters, this cannot be seen as an entirely positive facet of machine history.

Machines also neglected opportunities to make change in the structure of society and government, only making things better if it was pragmatic for gaining or maintaining power.[12] Because of Machine's shortsighted outlook, bloated forms of government were the norm and money changed hands without making a sizable impact on the city or community. The reformist

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[7] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 71.
[8] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 72.
[9] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 70.
[10] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 68.
[11] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 69.
[12] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 74.

movement sprouted up to address the lack of material change and aiming to trim the fat of the machine system.

Rise of the Reform Movement

Reformers saw that Political Machines were enfranchising the lower class by giving them political power, economic support, and social benefit, and aimed to realign municipal governments with the interests of the upper and middle classes. The reform movements aimed to change the bloated, bureaucratic, corrupt machine style city government into a trimmed, efficient, business like machine. This style of government would benefit reformers because the budget to run a business like the government would require less taxes and give political control to the educated upper strata of society to enact the policy change they wanted. To gain political control the reform movements sought to remove political power from immigrants and uneducated voters. The reform movement shows the response to the rise of the machine and the struggle of the wealthy to regain power over city politics.

I. Goals of the Reform Movement

Reformers saw urban Political Machines as criminals who had the reigns of government. They saw the corruption, embezzlement, and thick bureaucracy as inefficient mechanisms of government that were resulting in wasted tax dollars, misappropriated funds, and an overall poor government structure. These reformists saw the incorporation of immigrants into the political system as a net negative, bringing uneducated people who didn't contribute positively to the urban landscape into the decision-making process. Reformers aimed to reduce the impacts of immigrants in the political process of municipalities. Reformers labeled immigrant groups "the great unwashed", which is interesting because it summarizes two reformer sentiments: immigrants were seen as "great" in number and less sophisticated than the reformers

("unwashed"). Reformers went as far as to question whether or not universal suffrage was good for society, claiming that immigrants were too ignorant and illiterate to make intelligent policy decisions.[13]

Reform movements were not just anti-European immigrants, they were also anti-Black. Tammany Hall in New York City incorporated the Black vote via segregated political clubs in the late 1800s and the reformers took notice: "this growing appeal of machines to the Black vote became an additional point of contention for the reformers."[14] This attitude exemplifies the struggle between reform movements and Political Machines because it shows that reformers were largely driven by the desire to push people who were different from them (economically and socially) out of the political conversation. The tension between classes and ethnicities is apparent in the reformer struggle to regain political influence.

The reform movement aimed to streamline government processes and run municipal governments more like a business. This was based on Fredrick Winslow Taylor's book, "The Principles of Scientific Management" written in 1911, that established discipline and hierarchy as efficient management techniques. The principles of scientific management were interpreted by reformers as the driving philosophies for running municipal government. This business model required an executive with strong authority, the strong Mayor form of government took this form. In order to achieve a system with a strong central authority, reform movements launched to campaign for "home rule."[15] Home rule movements were city governments requesting that state legislators give the power to set city tax rates and regulate the cities internal affairs, deciding where and how to provide municipal services.

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[13] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 87.
[14] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 94.
[15] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 109.

II. Successes and Shortcomings of the Reform Movement

Reformers in the late 1890s were successful in introducing three main measures to counter election fraud: voter registration and literacy requirements, the Australian ballot, and nonpartisan elections. Voter registration and literacy requirements were instituted to fend off repeat voting and discouraged the import of voters for an election, "by 1920, almost all states had imposed registration laws."[16]

The Australian ballot also known as the secret ballot was introduced in the 1880s after the turn of the century, its use was universal. This was important because marked ballots made it easy for illiterate voters to identify their party and vote correctly, but with the Australian ballot, the Machine had less control over the voter base.

Non-partisan elections meant removing party labels of any kind from municipal election ballots reformers wanted this, so that machines candidates could not be easily recognized by illiterate voters via a party symbol. It is important to note that reformers were not fully successful in instituting non-partisan elections. In the Western states, 94% of cities used non-partisan elections, but in the east big cities managed to avoid transitioning to non-partisan elections "among those with more than 500,000 people, 85% still print party labels on the ballot."[17]

Reform movements were successful in their goal of dismantling civil service hiring systems. They did this by instituting written and oral civil service exams as the sole basis for hiring municipal employees. With a meritocratic system for hiring, it was drastically more difficult for machine entities to give jobs to whoever they wanted. Moreover, this system aligned with the ideals of scientific management, since a prerequisite for city employment was that the

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[16] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 93.
[17] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 98.

candidate could read, write, and take a test. This practice can also be seen as discriminatory, like literacy tests for voting, as uneducated applicants would be unable to pass these screening tests.

The promises made by reformers about the merits of a business-like model of government were exaggerated, and the results were unremarkable. Hinze and Judd conclude that "the adoption of city manager government had little, if any, effect on the level of city expenditures."[18] Tax rates were roughly the same in machine cities compared to reform cities. The major difference between machine run municipal governments and reform governments was who municipal services were targeted at. Reform governments neglected lower income areas while increasing services to homeowners and zoned land to "maximize new housing developments."[19]

By far the most successful endeavor of reform governments was the campaign for home rule. Taking off quickly and spreading like wildfire, "by 1925, 14 states granted home rule to their cities, and today virtually all cities are governed by 'home rule charters.'"[20] Reformers aimed to institute other types of municipal governments, such as the commission and manager governments. However, despite their initial appeal this form of government did not align with the business model of municipal government and was not implemented.

The Struggle Between Machines and Reformists

Machines and reformers represented opposite ends of the spectrum economically and ethnically, but both sought after the same goal: control over municipal governments. Both groups wanted to direct the funds and power of the municipal government towards their supporters, but they went about that in different ways. Machine politicians worked around the rules to provide

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[18] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 113.
[19] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 113.
[20] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 109-110.

yield to themselves and their constituents by embezzlement, patronage networks, contract negotiations, and off the book favors. Reformist movements sought to change the rules and structure of government so they could control the allocation of services and resources to their base. Machines were products of opportunity, seizing the influx of immigrants to urban centers for political advantage while reformers utilized racial discrimination to undermine the legitimacy of machine governments.

In the end, big city machines fell not as a result of the differences that reform movements made, but because they were unable to adapt to an ever dwindling immigrant base and the economic prosperity found by their prior constituents. Partially as a result of machine politics, "immigrants supporters began moving up the economic ladder." This resulted in patronage offerings and bribes being less attractive since the base was better off, shrinking the incentive for immigrants to vote for the machine candidate.[21] When the immigrant bases of urban city centers moved up economically and moved out to suburban developments, urban machines struggled to connect with the new generation of inner-city residents made up of new waves of immigrants, poor Whites, and Southern Blacks who moved into cities after WWII.[22]

Conclusion

The struggle for power between Urban Political Machines and reform movements was not just a clash of ideologies but a class conflict that reshaped the urban political landscape. Machines provided social services and encouraged democratic participation but their processes were corrupt and inefficient. Reform movements sought to streamline government in the interests of the upper class.

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[21] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 114.
[22] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 115.

Reformers were successful in creating a more transparent and accountable system for municipal government with the adoption of civil service exams, voting reforms, and the Australian ballot. These changes improved fairness and meritocracy in urban politics.

In the end, the decline of machine politics was not due solely to reform movements but more as a consequence of their failure to shift after changes in inner city demographics. The struggle for power in urban politics between reformers and machines has left a lasting impression on the mechanisms for municipal government that we observe today.

Question 2

Impoverishment of Cities

I. The Process that Led to Impoverished Urban Centers

The impoverishment of urban centers was a multistage process. A summary of the events is as follows: Southern Blacks migrate North, housing policies restrict their settlement, employment practices constrain their financial opportunity, the cycle of poverty leads to violence, media classifies cities as evil, property values decline, communities are stuck in poverty. In the following section I will explore each of these steps in further detail.

Economic and social conditions in the South pushed the Southern Black population to seek out new opportunities. For example, boll weevil infestations wiped out cotton fields in the South between 1890 and 1921 which led to economic devastation for Black sharecroppers who lived and worked these fields, they in turn sought out economic opportunities. This infestation was naturally caused, but it coincided with another human factor: racism. The racism towards Blacks in the South was violent and common, with lynchings at a rate of 1 person per week between 1880 and 1930.[23] The violence of Southern Whites along with the dwindling economic opportunity provided by sharecropping pushed Blacks to look for settlement elsewhere.

The North offered an opportunity. With industrialization, the Northern cities relied on cheap labor in factories for profitable production. This cheap labor in the early industrial period was provided by immigrants from Europe. During WWII, the flow of immigration sharply declined and the Northern industries found themselves in a labor shortage. To remedy their situation, Northern industrial companies sent recruiters South, with one way tickets North in exchange for the signing of an employment contract. When this demand for workers met the

[23] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 104.

supply of Southern Blacks looking for economic opportunity, the first great migration was the result. Between 1910 and 1930, the largest non-emergency movement of a people in recorded history occurred between the Southern and Northern states.[24]

The expectation for Blacks who made this migration was that the North would give them freedom from the oppressive racial caste system of the South as well as economic opportunity in the form of secure jobs. This expectation was promised by the job recruiters who supplied tickets as well as media such as the *Chicago Defender* which published "The Great Northern Drive" promising the North as a land of opportunity and an "escape from harassment and violence." The Northern Drive article circulated throughout the South, and is cited as a substantial influence of the great migration.[25]

To the dismay of Southern migrants, the promised land did not hold up in reality. Upon arrival in urban centers of the North, Blacks were met with racism, violence, and little economic opportunity, everything they thought they were avoiding by going North.

To start, housing opportunities were constrained by the racism of Northern homeowners. When African Americans attempted to move into White neighborhoods, they were met with harassment and resistance. White homeowners congregated in homeowners associations to "discuss strategies of resistance" against Black encroachment on their neighborhoods. One such strategy of resistance was adding covenants to deeds that would bar Black buyers from moving into White neighborhoods. These stipulations were held up by local court systems and spread to most White neighborhoods. This is an example of how municipal government policy contributed to the economic impoverishment of cities. Realtors also upheld these policies of excluding African Americans from White neighborhoods, and sometimes used the fear of an influx of

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[24] Judd and Hinze 2019, *City Politics,* 104
[25] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 168.

Black homeowners as a scare tactic to get White homeowners to sell their properties.[26] This is another example of how social policies contributed to the impoverishment of inner-cities.

Moreover, Black people were met with violence as they moved into Northern cities. For example, from 1917 to 1921, Chicago experienced 58 racially motivated bombings and in the "red summer" of 1919 race riots broke out in 20 cities showcasing mob violence against African Americans.[27] These outbursts of violence showed the disdain Northern Whites felt towards the influx of Southern Black migrants. As Hinze and Judd summarize, "Blacks who attempted to move into White neighborhoods were terrorized."

The result of social and governmental housing policies and racial violence was that "racial segregation had become firmly fixed even before the second great wave of Black migration" so all Black migrants in the future were forced to move into urban centers.[28] Overtime, these mainly Black "ghettos" became extremely overcrowded, and "block-by-block skirmishes" pushed the line between Black and White neighborhoods out. This fleeing of White families from the neighborhoods of central cities became known as "White flight" and this process left city neighborhoods almost exclusively Black by the mid 1960s.[29] An example of the resulting demographic is Detroit in 2005, 11% of the population was White and 10% of the suburbs were African American.[30]

On jobs and financial security, Black migrants did not get what they were promised. Southern Blacks were the last hired and the first fired by the heavily unionized factories of the North. Union policies excluded Black membership and as a result a steady well paying job was

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[26] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 174.
[27] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 171.
[28] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 171.
[29] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 174.
[30] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 174.

difficult to come by.[31] This resulted in high poverty rates in the inner-cities where Black people lived. Sociologist William Wilson studied the Black ghetto and concluded that the cycle of poverty was perpetuated by “concentration effects" and attributed the steep decline in manufacturing jobs to the poverty and joblessness of the African American population. Wilson saw inner-city ghettos as declining with “no end in sight.”[32] The cyclical nature of poverty meant that cities got poorer and poorer. Public health infrastructure lacked funding and as a result these communities suffered health crises far greater than affluent areas. For example, Harlem had a higher infant mortality rate and lower life expectancy than the surrounding areas of New York, despite being on average younger.[33] Another contributing factor to the impoverishment of cities was the drug epidemic which caused an increase in violent crime as different groups fought to maintain hold of the drug exchange.[34]

The media clung on to stories of inner-city decline which created a public image of sin, violence, and crime to be synonymous with cities. Hinze and Judd discuss the media's role as having “sensationalized and exaggerated narratives of good and evil” placing the suburbs as the good and the cities as the evil.[35] This narrative only resulted in negative yield for those living in cities. Drug related arrests increased, and with a high incarceration rate families struggled to stay afloat.

To summarize, the migration of Southern Blacks to the Northern urban landscape was met with resistance from the White citizenry who barred Black ownership of homes, lashed out violently, fled the inner-cities, and cast cities in a negative light resulting in a cycle of worsening poverty.

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[31] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 176.
[32] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 178.
[33] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 180
[34] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 180.
[35] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 181.

Growth of the Suburb

I. The Process that Led to Suburban Expansion

The growth of suburbs occurred in multiple stages all driven by the same underlying principle, one group of people felt that the city and the people in it were not good enough for them. In colonial times, the wealthy elite would live on the outskirts of cities to keep the benefits of the city within reach but stay far from the noise. This trend continues over time but the economic barrier of who gets to live outside the city center is lowered.

The first documented commuter suburb of a city is found in 1814 in Brooklyn where a ferry service allowed people to settle in Brookly and travel to Manhattan for work and commerce.[36] Horse drawn streetcars began in 1850, allowing professionals and businessmen to commute. Later, increases in transportation allowed more people to move to the suburbs and commute to the city. Electric trolleys provided quick access to the city and communities sprouted up around the rail lines, increasing residentially usable land by 900%.[37] Commercial automobiles later opened the suburbs to the middle class with the Ford model T. Developments for automobile commuters filled the gaps in land between rail lines. These advancements of transportation made it feasible to live outside the city center. This concludes the role of transportation in the expansion of the suburb.

Another driver of suburban development was the romantic idea that cities lacked nature and moving outside of the city would fill a hole in city dwellers. The literature of the romantic movement in the 1830s and 1840s labeled cities, technology, and modernism as negative and nature as positive. People in this time period became "disenchanted" with cities and turned to nature for recreation with the rise of "Boy Scouts, Campfire Girls, Woodcraft Indians,"

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[36] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 183.
[37] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 184.

"Bird-watching and nature photography."[38] It is important to note that suburban residents did not want to abandon cities altogether, they just wanted to fuse both worlds, this fusion was found in suburban life.[39]

After WWII, 16 million soldiers returned to the US. Originally, they doubled up in residences with relatives but it was apparent that a housing expansion was needed to accommodate them. As a result, cookie cutter developments sprung up and the housing industry created over a million homes in a six year period between 1944 and 1950, almost exclusively in suburbs.[40] The development of suburbs hardly slowed. As a result of federally insured home loans, cheap energy, and efficient building technology it became more economical to build a new home in the suburbs than to revitalize old city homes or apartments.[41] Take note of the mention of federally insured home loans as I will explore the impact of such loans in the following section. Because of the booming development of suburbs, the populations of cities declined and homeownership boomed from 44% in 1940 to 63% in 1970.[42]

To summarize, suburbs came to drive economic and population growth in metropolitan areas because there was a desire to move out of cities due to the feeling of White flight and romantic ideals and there was feasibility with the development of consumer automobiles and the housing industry responded with quick and cheap development supported by federal home loan initiatives that resulted in the majority of the middle and upper class living in suburbs and thus economic prosperity.

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[38] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 183.
[39] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 183.
[40] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 188.
[41] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 188.
[42] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 188.

Impact on Social and Economic Groups

The advent of suburban development resulted in stark stratification between the wealth, demographics, and political support of urban and suburban areas. Zoning policies favored suburban development over urban revitalization and development. Investments were made into suburban infrastructure. Federal housing policies and mortgage practices incentivized homeownership.

Racism that drove the "White flight" from city centers to suburbs was backed by government entities. The Federal Housing Administration "endorsed the emergence of segregated suburbs" by prioritizing White homeownership and implementing criteria that discriminated against and limited homeownership opportunities for African Americans.[43] The Veteran's Home Loan Program, specifically "Title III of Servicemen's Readjustment Act of 1944" worked in tandem with financial institutions to reject loan applications to Black veterans.[44] The gap between Black and White homeownership has been substantial throughout the 20th century, but in the post-war period this gap widened significantly. Hinze and Judd state that "this was the consequence of targeted federal programs that were intended to discriminate by race."[45] These examples show the impact of the federal government's policies on specific subgroups such as African Americans resulting in economic disparity.

Another group that was impacted by federal policy was immigrants from parts of the world that were not Northern European. Government laws from 1920-1906 instituted xenophobic immigration policies. The National Origins Immigration Act of 1924 drastically reduced immigration from any country that was not in Northern Europe because those immigrants

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[43] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 191.
[44] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 191.
[45] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 191.

(including Jews, Slavs, Greeks, and Italians) were seen as "inferior".[46] In the 1990s, Congress reformed those immigration laws which resulted in a 40% increase in documented immigrants allowed into the United States and we see that Asian and Hispanic immigration increased as a result. 93% of these legal immigrants settled in urban areas, with over half moving to 7 metro areas.[47] This shows that federal immigration policy has a drastic impact on the lifeblood of metropolitan areas.

In conclusion, government policies at the municipal and federal level have exerted a profound and disparate influence on various demographic groups within American society. The adverse effects have disproportionately burdened inner-city ethnic and racial communities, particularly African Americans and refugees from non-Northern European countries. These marginalized groups have had to fight against the detrimental consequences of policies that were enacted directly against their interests. Conversely, the middle class and affluent segments of American society have reaped the benefits of supportive government measures such as federal housing loans, mortgage backings, and suburban development budgets. The result of this disparity is the urban crisis of the 20th century: socioeconomic disparities between the suburbs and struggling urban centers.

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[46] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 194.
[47] Hinze and Judd 2023, *City Politics,* 193-195

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